

Towards a taxonomy of tourism products

Bob McKercher

School of Hotel and Tourism Management, The Hong Kong Polytechnic University, Hong Kong



HIGHLIGHTS

- Proposes a taxonomy of tourism products.
- Integrates more than 50 other studies that have sought to categorize or classify products.
- Adopts a marketing focus to tourism products.

ARTICLE INFO

Article history:

Received 20 May 2015

Received in revised form

13 November 2015

Accepted 13 November 2015

Available online xxx

Keywords:

Taxonomy

Tourism product

Classification

ABSTRACT

This paper proposes a seven tiered taxonomy of tourism products in an effort to add some structure to the vast array of offerings available today. The paper adopts a phenetic method to group products hierarchically, using a modified version of the marketing-oriented product hierarchy system. Five broad Need Families are identified including: Pleasure, Personal Quest, Human Endeavour, Nature and Business. They incorporate 27 Product Families and 90 Product Classes.

© 2015 Elsevier Ltd. All rights reserved.

1. Introduction

Tourism is a fragmented and disjointed activity (Benckendorff & Zehrer, 2013; Echtner & Jamal, 1997; Laws and Scott 2015) typified by multiple communities of discourse with historically little cross fertilization between communities (Gibson, 1998). The result is weak theory development (Mazanec 2009, Tribe, 2006). Two main factors contribute to this situation. The first is the seemingly endless expansion of the field through ever finer subdivisions of tourism products, with each new type presented as a discrete form that is worthy of extensive research. In reality differences often represent minor variations on a theme rather than new themes (Franklin and Crang 2001). The second issue is the historical evolution of tourism studies as an area of inquiry explored from a wide array of disciplines (Ritchie, Sheehan, & Timur, 2008). Each discipline has staked a claim to certain areas of enquiry (Jafari & Ritchie, 1981), conceptualized them, examined them and, as Tribe (2006) argues, constrains research from within that discipline's knowledge force field. The end result is that tourism studies lacks a common language under which objects are defined and explored

(Gibson, 1998; Kennedy-Eden and Gretzel 2012). The same terms are used to connote different ideas, while different terms are used to refer to the same thing. Definitions are often conflated (Connell, 2013). Ultimately, Pritchard (2012) argues that because of these systemic issues, the field remains beset by many ontological, epistemological and methodological shortcomings.

Perhaps one area where this fragmentation is most evident is in the identification and classification of products. Classification systems have been developed in other aspects of tourism, such as the travel trade, transport and accommodations sectors, as part of the process of developing Tourism Satellite Accounts (UNWTO, 2008a, b). Yet no such system exists for products. Indeed, the UNWTO avoids addressing this issue by asserting the "notion of "tourism product" is not related to the concept of "product" used in economic statistics" (UNWTO, 2008a: 30) and therefore sees no need to undertake such a task. However, it later infers that the real reason is that such a task is placed in the 'too hard' basket, for it notes "because "products" are still not sufficiently characterized in a uniform way, there is no international recommendation for the use of this type of classification (UNWTO, 2008a: 30)".

The UNWTO identifies two further issues. On the one hand, it notes that traditionally 'products' have tended to be identified by

E-mail address: bob.mckercher@polyu.edu.hk.

the travel trade as a marketing instrument for gearing supply to specific markets interested in particular aspects of the places visited (UNWTO, 2008b: 33). On the other hand, the same document highlights “tourism products should not be confused with the SNA (System of National Accounts) concept of products nor do these products belong to any associated codes or classification of goods and services, such as the Central Product Classification system, the Classification of Individual Consumption According to Purpose (COICOP) or the Harmonized Commodity Description System uses in most national statistical agencies. [Plus] “Types of tourism products” should also not be confused with “tourism characteristic products” which are identified through COICOP. The concept of tourism products does not fit within existing [frameworks] (UNWTO, 2008b: 33) ”.

The need for some broadly based classification system is well recognized though (Mehmetoglu, 2004a), with the UNWTO (2008b:33) even acknowledging “it cannot be denied that there is a need to create some kind of parameters to define and segment the different types of tourism products”. Moreover, a large number of sector specific studies have been conducted proposing typologies and/or taxonomies. These works tend to be conducted independently, with little reference to other studies. Different methods are used and the concepts of product, travel style, tourist type and destination attributes are melded. In addition, because each system has been developed by advocates of a specific sector, boundaries often overlap, or are defined in an arbitrarily narrow manner based on value-laden criteria. Many gaps exist. The result is a rather confused mélange of ideas typified by lack of coherence that entrenches fragmentation rather than works towards the development of a holistic, collective whole.

This study represents the first attempt to address this issue by proposing a comprehensive tourism product taxonomy. It adopts a modified version of the marketing-oriented product taxonomic classification system (Kotler & Keller, 2012). Velardi, Cucchiarelli, and Petit (2007) argue that building a taxonomy is considered the first step in creating a formal ontology of a domain, with Coccossis and Constangoglu (2008) suggesting such a system can help better understand the structure of destinations and to assist in more effective policy and planning.

2. Taxonomies

A taxonomy is a specific classification scheme that expresses the overall similarity between organisms, entities and/or things in a hierarchical fashion (Rich, 1992). The system classifies items in an ordered way to indicate natural relationships, and in doing so, to help understand the evolutionary relationship between them (Fenneman, 2013). Items sharing similarities are first grouped into like populations. These populations are then nested in a hierarchical manner into a series of progressively broader and more general categories. Taxonomic frameworks, therefore, progress upward from the specific to the general and/or downward from the general to the specific. As Hedden (2010:6) states “a hierarchical taxonomy is a kind of controlled vocabulary in which each term is connected to a designated broader term (unless it is the top-level term) and one or more narrower terms (unless it is a bottom level term), and all the terms are organized into a single large hierarchical structure”. Within a tourism context, Tweed (2005) argues the principal aim is to add structure to the space of tourism that otherwise appears to consist of a chaotic and undifferentiated offers all competing with each other.

The terms taxonomy and typology are often used synonymously even though their philosophical and methodological bases are quite different (Smith, 2002; Young, Corsun, & Baloglu, 2007). Taxonomic systems are empirically based and classify items using

observable and measurable characteristics. Typologies, on the other hand, tend to be conceptually based and separate items multi-dimensionally, based on the notion of an ideal type. As such, typologies are mental constructs that deliberately accentuate certain characteristics that may not be found in empirical reality.

The modern concept of a taxonomic system was developed by the Swedish botanist Carolus Linnaeus in the 18th century to standardize the naming system for animal and plant species (Linnaean, 2015). The classic Linnaean taxonomy uses seven tiers with increasing specificity, beginning at the top with the Kingdom and progressing downward to include the Phylum, Class, Order, Family, Genus and Species. The Genus represents organisms with similar morphology, structure, and, importantly, evolutionary history, while Species are comprised of all related organisms capable of interbreeding, while members of the same Genus cannot (Fenneman, 2013). Most taxonomic systems end at the Species level, however, it is now generally accepted that the Species taxa can be sub-divided into Subspecies or Varieties (Mallett, 2007). A Subspecies represents geographical variation of a species based on morphological characters (Braby, Eastwood, & Murray, 2012), while Varieties are a smaller subdivision, where the entity differs from other varieties in only certain minor characteristics.

A similar structure is also used to classify products (Howard, 1983) where they can also be classified into a hierarchical structure based on their relatedness. Dar, Shocker, and Srivastava (1979:10) argue it is better to think in terms of levels in a hierarchy of products within a generic product class that represent all possible ways of satisfying a consumer's need or want. They illustrate that different product types satisfy significantly different needs, while within the same product type, individual products can either satisfy specific needs, or can be substituted to satisfy similar needs. Kotler and Keller (2012) expand on this idea by indicating a product hierarchy stretches from basic needs to particular items that satisfy those needs. While the number of levels can vary depending on the breadth and complexity of needs and the variety of alternatives to satisfy that need, Kotler and Keller (2012: 336), suggest the use of a six tier hierarchy as shown in Fig. 1. The Need Family represents the core need that underlies the product family. The Product Family includes all the product classes that can satisfy a core need. The Product Class that represents a group of products that have certain functional coherence. The Product Line includes closely related products that perform similar functions. The Product

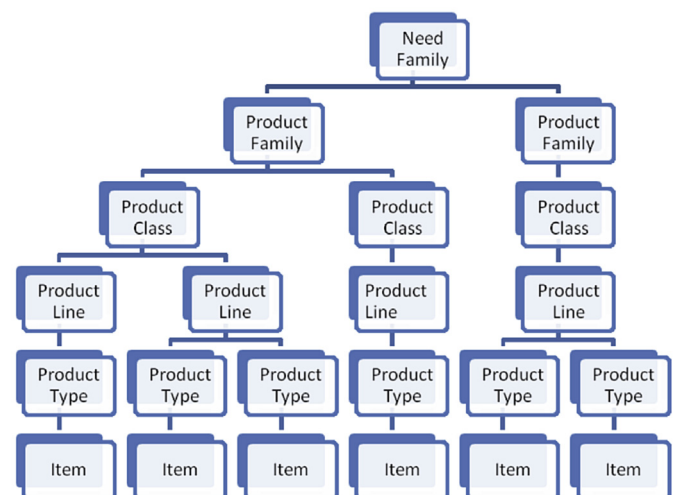


Fig. 1. Product hierarchy.
Source: From Kotler and Keller (2012).

Table 1
Product classification studies.

Sector	Author	Type of framework	Number of items in first category/tier	Key features/notes
Adventure	Buckley (2010)	Matrix		Commercial product pyramid x axis – volume of participants y axis – difficult (skill level required)
Agritourism	Phillip et al. (2010)	Typology	5	Based on response to three questions
Attractions	Goeldner and Ritchie (2011)	Taxonomy	5	Main attraction types: cultural; natural; events; recreation; entertainment
Attractions	Page (2009)	Structure of attractions	2	3 ways to consider them: – Natural vs. man made – Nodal or linear – Locations: permanent attractions and special events
Battlefield Business	Smith (1996) Swarbrooke and Horner (2001)	List Typology	15	Predominantly types of business travel, with some products listed
Culinary	Hall and Mitchell (2005)	Matrix	5	x axis – centrality of purpose (primary; secondary; tertiary) y axis – volume of tourists
Cultural/heritage	Prentice (1993)	List	23	23 broad themes with examples
Cultural/heritage	du Cros and McKercher (2015)	Typology	11	Cultural attractions defined based on common management issues
Cultural/heritage	Leask and Yeoman (1999)	Matrix		x axis heritage type (built; natural and living) y axis – scale (nation/region; area; site)
Cultural/heritage	Richards (2001)	Matrix		x axis – function (education to entertainment) y axis – form (present to past).
Cultural/heritage	Tweed (2005)	Taxonomy	3	Main categories: Object; Event or Place
Cultural/heritage	Yale (1998)	List	11	11 broad themes with examples
Dark tourism	Stone (2006)	Typology	7	Main categories: dark fun factories; dark exhibitions; dark dungeons; dark resting places; dark shrines; dark conflict sites; dark camps of genocide
Dark tourism	Sharpley (2005)	Matrix		x axis – level of interest (pale to dark) y axis – level of development to exploit death (accidental or purposeful)
Destination	Coccosis and Constangoglu (2008)	Broad framework		Define by supply side characteristics of a destination
Educational Events	Ritchie (2003) Arcodia and Robb (2000)	Continuum Taxonomy	3	Education first to tourism first Main categories: events; festivals; MICE
Events	Getz (2008)	Typology	7	Main categories: cultural celebrations; political and state; arts and entertainment; business and trade; educational and scientific; sport competition; private events
Events	Getz (2012)	Typology	10	Main categories: festivals and other cultural celebrations; arts and entertainment; religious; including pilgrimages; fairs and meetings and conferences; sports and other athletic competitions/games; recreational; private events; state and political; and educational/scientific events
Events	Frost (2012)	Typology	4	Main categories: mega events; hallmark events; business tourism; rural events
Forms of tourism	Williams (2009)	Typology	6	Main categories: recreational; business; health; educational; cultural; social
Marine ecotourism	Garrod and Wilson (2003)	Typology	2	Specialist vs. Generalist (1 species vs. Many species)
Medical	Stolley and Watson (2012)	Typology	4	Main categories: dental; reproductive; transplant; lifestyle
Medical	Ellis (2011)	Typology	2 or 3	Main categories: medical; wellness/health (sometimes combined; sometimes separate)
Medical	Medtreast (2015)	Taxonomy	3	Main categories: cosmetic; dental; general
Memory	Marschall (2014)	Typology	3	Nostalgia; reliving; confronting personal memories
Mineral Extractions	Swarbrooke (2002)	Typology	4	Main categories: natural; human made not originally designed for visitation; human made and purpose built for visitation; special events
Nature based	Arnegger et al. (2010)	4 × 4 matrix		x axis – centrality of motive y axis – level of individuality Conflates products and markets
Natural Resource Based	Fennell (2012)	Two 2 × 2 matrices		Uses two matrices Matrix 1 based on: – Impact – consumptive vs. non-consumptive – Natural resource values – preservation vs. conservation Matrix 2 based on: – Technical skills (high or low reliance) – Learning (activity based or nature based)
Nature based	Mihalic (2006)	Typology	3	Main categories: nature based; ecotourism and adventure
Niche tourism	Robinson and Novelli (2005)	Taxonomy	2	Main category: mass vs. niche Second Category – 5 (micro niches: cultural; environmental; rural; urban; others)
Poverty Purpose	Ausland (2010) NIOS (2013)	Taxonomy Purpose based	3 2	Main categories: learning (education travel); leisure (tourism); labour (voluntourism)
Recreational Tourism Resources	Gjorgievski, Kozuharov, and Nakovski (2013).	Loose taxonomy	2	Main categories: mainstream and alternative tourism Some products appear in multiple places Main category: natural or anthropogenic
Sex	Ryan and Hall (2001)	Matrix		x axis – voluntary/exploitative y axis – commercial/non commercial
Sex	Bauer and McKercher (2003)	Matrix		x axis – motivation – low to high y axis – exploitative to mutually beneficial

Table 1 (continued)

Sector	Author	Type of framework	Number of items in first category/tier	Key features/notes
Southern Hospitality	Megehee and Spake (2008)	Typology	8	Southern hospitality is performance
Sport	Gibson (2002)	Typology	3	3 overlapping circles of: nostalgic; active; event
Sport	Robinson and Gammon (2004)	Continuum		Continuum of sport tourism to tourism sport
Sport	Standeven and De Knop (1999).	Taxonomy	2	Main categories: holiday; non-holiday Partially developed
Sports Events	Gammon (2012)	Typology	5	Main categories: special; mega; hallmark; sports heritage; parades and festivals; small-scale/community sports events
Theme Park	Ho and Ap (2009)	Typology	7	Main categories: adventure; futurism; international; nature; fantasy; history and culture; movies
Theme Parks	Anon (2015)	Typology	3	Main categories: amusement; theme; water
Theme Parks	Clave (2007)	Typology	4	Main categories: destination; urban; regional; niche
Tourism in General	Robinson, Lück, and Smith (2013)	Typology	30	30 primary product types
Urban precincts	Howard (2010)	Typology	4	Main categories: nature of precinct – developed CBD; engulfing; attraction-specific; complex mixed non-CBD
Urban precincts	Pearce (2001)	Typology	6	Type of urban precincts: historic; ethnic; sacred space; redevelopment zone; entertainment; functional
Wellness	Smith and Puczko (2009)	Taxonomy	7	Main categories: physical healing; beauty treatments; relaxation/rest; leisure/entertainment; life/work balance; psychological; spiritual

Type represents items share a similar form. The Item represents a distinct item or product. Thus, all lower level categories inherit the product type and set types of high level categories (SAP 2105, Kotler & Keller, 2009).

Sokal (1986) reminds us that taxonomies are human constructs based on the idea of natural classification, where members of each taxon at each level are on the average more similar to each other than they are to members of other taxa at corresponding levels. Cain (2014) and Dupre (2001) also note that no specific theory grounds classification systems methods. Instead, a ‘fit for purpose’ pluralistic method is endorsed that both allows for and expects some subjectivity. None the less, a number of protocols exist to ensure the taxonomy is intellectually valid. A good taxonomy should separate elements of a group into subgroups that are mutually exclusive, unambiguous, and taken together, include all possibilities (Linnaean, 2015; Tweed, 2005). Groups should be reasonably homogenous and have reasonably sharp boundaries. As such, it is important to develop a controlled vocabulary that shows how each item is connected to a designated broader term and to one or more narrower terms (Hansman & Hunt, 2004; Hedden, 2010). Ideally, the same product can appear only once in a taxonomy. This issue is especially prescient in tourism, where a product may satisfy different needs and thus could be placed in different taxa. Fenneman (2013) notes this situation also occurs commonly in biology, with the decision about where to place an item into a single taxa is based on its dominant partner.

The number of levels should be defined by the ability to combine smaller conceptual units into larger and more meaningful representations that subsume their individual constituents (Kerin, Kalyanaram, & Howard, 1996). Dupre (2001), Hedden (2010) and Hunt (2010) caution about the risk of getting lost in minutiae and creating too many layers or sub groups where few real differences exist. This risk is enhanced when terms of reference are not clear and when arbitrary criteria are introduced that make artificial distinctions between essentially like items. In particular, scale and geographic difference represent two factors that can complicate the process rather than clarify it. A Pekingese may be a small dog that traces its origins to China, while a Great Dane is a large dog that traces its origins to Europe. But, both are still dogs!

3. Existing attempts to classify tourism products

A large volume of research has been published in recent years attempting to group tourism products into typologies or taxonomies. Table 1 summarises more than 50 such studies. The Table shows the sector in question, identifies the authors, the approach adopted, key features of the framework, the number of items that appear in the top tier of the framework if relevant and also notes key features. Table 2 identifies a further set of systems developed by public sector bodies, including national tourism organisations. Attempts have been made to classify products in about 30 sectors ranging in scale from the macro, beginning with precincts within destinations (Howard, 2010; Pearce, 2001) and attractions (Goeldner and Ritchie 2012, Page, 2009) through to clearly recognised Product Classes such as cultural heritage (du Cros and McKercher 2015, Leask & Yeoman, 1999; Prentice, 1993; Richards, 2001; Tweed, 2005; Yale, 1998) and natural resource based tourism (Arnegger, Woltering, & Job, 2010; Fennell, 2012, Mihalic, 2006) to more specialised forms of tourism such as agritourism (Phillip, Hunter, & Blackstock, 2010), medical tourism (Ellis nd, Medtreat, 2015, Stolley & Watson, 2012) and dark tourism (Stone, 2006). Each study informs this paper to some extent by suggesting possible Product Classes, Lines and Types and by also offering suggestions as to how to nest products.

This body of literature highlights the challenges that confront attempts to develop a unified taxonomy. On the surface, what would appear to be a relatively simple task is complicated by the complex nature of tourism, the vast array of product offerings available, the use of different terms to describe essentially the same product, conflation of ideas and the realisation that the same product can serve multiple roles and could thus be placed in multiple categories. Indeed, the sheer volume of work, and the different methods used represent the single greatest argument in favour of developing a unified taxonomy.

Even the simple task of defining a ‘product’ is problematic, for the line between a ‘product’, the tourist who consumes the product, a style of travel that reflects the desire for the product and trip purpose are often blurred. Many papers that promote product typologies are in fact market segmentation studies that highlight how

Table 2
Public sector product groupings.

Source	Number of categories	Categories
Visit England (from Page, 2009)	11	Cathedral and churches Country parks Farms Gardens Historic houses and castles Other historic properties Leisure and theme parks Museums and galleries Steam railways Visitor centres Wildlife attractions and zoos
Australia Tourism Data Warehouse (ATDW, 2015)	25	Amusement and theme parks Classes, lessons, workshops Dining and eating out Entertainment Farming, food and produce Galleries, museums and collections Historical sites and heritage locations Landmarks and buildings Markets Mining and industry National parks and reserves Natural attractions Observatories and planetariums Parks and gardens Scenic drives and walks Shopping Spas and retreats Sports and recreation facilities Wineries, vineyards and breweries Zoos, sanctuaries, aquariums and wildlife parks Exhibitions and shows Festivals and celebrations Events – markets Performances Sporting events Practising a sport Sightseeing Visiting natural or man made sites Seeing a show Wellbeing Watching a sporting event Cruising Gambling Fine dining Summer camp
Montserrat (nd)	10 categories	Cosmetic/plastic surgery Dermatology Dental Lasik Holistic/anti-aging Sex reassignment Medical and wellness spa Medical check up General treatments Entertainment Attractions Leisure Attractions Events Food and beverage Tourism services Adventure Archaeology Business, congress, convention Cruising (fresh or salt water) Culture/heritage Ecotourism/nature based Coastal Education Food Health and wellness Rural
Medical Tourism (TAT, 2010)	9	
Italy	3	
Yukon, Canada (2015); Caribbean (Nibbs, 1999) (built from UNWTO)	8 of which 4 relate to products	
EU (2014)	15	

Table 2 (continued)

Source	Number of categories	Categories
UNWTO (2008a)	8	Shopping
		Spiritual/religious
		Transit
		War
		Winter
		Destination
		Disaster
		Events
		Food
		Historical
		Music
UNWTO (2008b)	4	Religion
		Sport
		Food and beverage serving services
		Recreation, culture and sporting activities
		Shopping
		Other

segments can have qualitatively different experiences while consuming the same product. This type of conflation of consumer and experience is particularly evident in special interest tourism. The Arnegger et al. (2010) study highlighted in this paper is typical. While it proposes a nature based tourism product matrix, it is really a market segmentation study, for activities like bird watching appear in two separate places in the matrix. Other typologies define products by the demographic characteristics of users (seniors, backpackers, students), level of packaging (independent or all inclusive), or form of tourism (incentive, ecotourism). Yet, on closer inspection, it is evident that these approaches do not necessarily define discrete products, for different types of tourists may consume the same products within a destination.

For the purpose of this paper, a product is defined in its broadest sense as the activities, attractions and interests consumed by tourists in a destination that satisfy their needs. It builds on both Pearce's (1991) and Lew's (1987) pioneering work and corresponds closely with the UNWTO (2008a, b) recognition that products are defined as much by the activities pursued by visitors as by the supplier, meaning that almost anything could be considered as a 'product' if it is used by tourists. This definition clarifies four important ontological issues. First, in accordance with earlier definitions, the concept of a product can include the traditional triad of location specific built, natural and cultural features. But at a more generic level, non location-specific experiences or activities pursued by tourists can also be considered as products. In this manner, sightseeing, exploring, shopping, dining, relaxing on a beach and many other activities are identified within this taxonomy. Second, the definition acknowledges that products do not have to be commercial, in recognition that much of what tourists consume is part of the public domain, available free of charge (McKercher, 1993). Third, the specification of in-destination consumption differentiates products consumed while travelling from 'product' sold by the travel trade in the source market, such as package tours, incentive tours and the like. Finally, the definition eliminates scale and spatial considerations as defining variables. Many of the frameworks identified in Table 1 use these criteria to create an artificial distinction between essentially similar experiences, especially in the events, theme park and cultural tourism sectors.

Two other related issues also arise from Tables 1 and 2. The first is to how to classify a product that could fit into multiple categories. This issue is particularly vexing in tourism. A theme park may represent a form of built attraction, but if it has an historical theme, it may also be classified as a cultural attraction. A zoo may exist as a separate product category in its own right, could represent a form

of built theme park or could also be classified as an ecotourism attraction. The adoption of a matrix approach is the solution proposed in many studies discriminate products. This paper adopts the method suggested by Fennemann (2013) to place products into a single taxa based on its dominant partner.

The second issue is how to classify an activity that, on the one hand, may be considered as a product in its own right, but on the other hand, may be the catalyst or platform through which another product can be consumed. This situation arises commonly the festivals and events sectors (du Cros and McKercher 2015). Here, proponents of festivals and events argue they represent unique products, while others suggest they may be the platform through which a range of cultural experiences can be consumed. This issue is resolved by regarding events as Product Types that fit within specific Product Lines and Classes, rather than being a Product Class in itself.

4. Method

The purpose of this study is to propose a taxonomy of tourism products. A phenetic, method is adopted that incorporates a mix of top down and a bottom up approaches as endorsed by Rich (1992). The term phenetic was introduced in 1960 to describe a method in which forms were arranged by overall similarity, based on all available characteristics without any weighting (Jensen, 2009; Sokal, 1986). It is preferred in non-biological groupings where it is impossible to show a true genetic relationships between items, but where natural relationships exists, none-the less (Jensen, 2009). A similar approach to the one used by Kennedy-Eden and Gretzel (2012) in their work on mobile applications in tourism is adopted. The process itself is iterative and involved two *a priori* and two *a posteriori* stages. The *a priori* steps involved essentially a bottom up approach, while the *a posteriori* approaches used a top down method. Young et al. (2007) suggest an *a posteriori* approach is suitable where the number and nature of clusters are not known *a priori*.

The first step involved developing as comprehensive a list of tourism products as possible by canvassing the academic literature, popular media, national tourism organisation websites and, yes, even Wikipedia. The preliminary list included over 400 different items. It was then cleaned to remove those items that did not satisfy the definition of a product used in this paper, revealing a set of more than 330 discrete 'products'. Some of these products best reflected Product Types, while others better reflected Product Lines, Product Classes and even Product Families.

The second step involved a review of the extant academic literature, supported by information from various national tourism organisation studies. The purpose of this stage was three fold. First, the review sought to catalogue what had already been written and then to use this information to identify candidate Product Lines, Classes and Families. For example, built heritage is best reflective of a Product Class, while historic sites, places associated with historic persons, castles, stately homes and historic homes better reflect lower tiers of the hierarchy. This step identified how hierarchical clusters were developed and aided in the development of prospective nesting groups. It also helped identify overlap and gaps in coverage, examples of common language or different terminologies to refer to similar products. Second, this analysis led to the identification of grouping variables that were largely irrelevant (scale and geographic location for example) or examples where the classification system seemed to be lost in too much trivial detail. Then,

third, a series of draft Product Line and Product Type branches were developed, assessed and revised multiple times to determine if the products identified in Step One fit well into the proposed structures.

The third stages involved identifying Need Families, Product Families and Product Classes using a top down *a posteriori* approach. While the first two stages informed this stage, the author was not committed to using existing labels if they did not fit. Instead, prior efforts to develop prospective Product Lines and Product Types resulted in an intuitive development of higher order classes. The creation of Need Family that embodied Product Families, Product Classes and laterally product Lines and Types was the overall goal of this stage. This step also involved the re-consideration of some of the proposed Product Lines and Product Types and their respective constituent elements identified in the earlier stages, when it became apparent that they did not fit well into the emerging higher order groups. The fourth

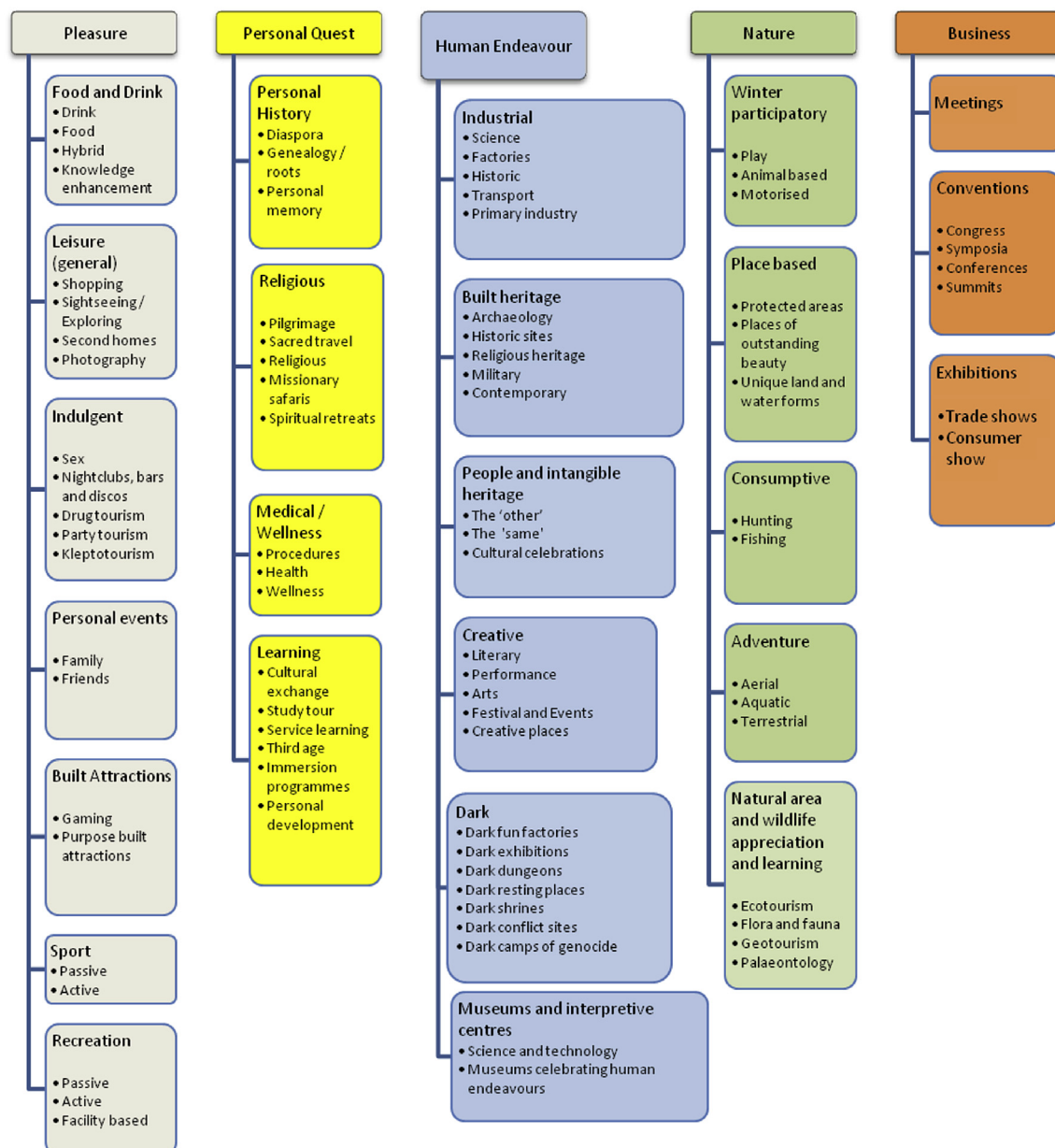


Fig. 2. A tourism product taxonomy (first 3 tiers only).

stage was essentially a validation stage, where each of the more than 330 products identified in Stage 1 was mapped against the taxonomy.

The limits of this study must be acknowledged. The reader must always be aware that the paper's title "*Towards a Taxonomy of Tourism Products*" specifies both the intent and limits of the study. The purpose of the work is to propose a taxonomy for further discussion, elaboration and debate, rather than to posit an absolute system. It is further recognised that the 330 products identified do not represent an exhaustive list of all products offered. One could likely develop a list of thousands of products if all the types of sports, recreation and nature based products were listed. So, the set of products used in this study represent a sample of exemplars. Finally, while the paper was informed from existing sources, it ultimately reflects one person's opinion, biases and prejudices.

5. A 6 level tourism product taxonomy

The purpose of this paper is to highlight the natural links between and among products in hierarchical fashion. A fit for purpose taxonomic approach was adopted, whereby members of each taxon are on average more similar to each other than they are to members of other taxa as a corresponding level. A six level taxonomy of tourism products is proposed, as shown in Fig. 2–6. The framework generally follows the Kotler and Keller (2012) model, with the addition of a sixth Sub-type tier to account for the added complexity of tourism products.

Fig. 1 highlights the first three layers of the taxonomy, identifying five broad Need Families at the top of the chart, with proposed Product Families (individual boxes below the Need Family) and Product Classes (sub sections highlighted by bullet points) in each



Fig. 3. Pleasure (detailed).

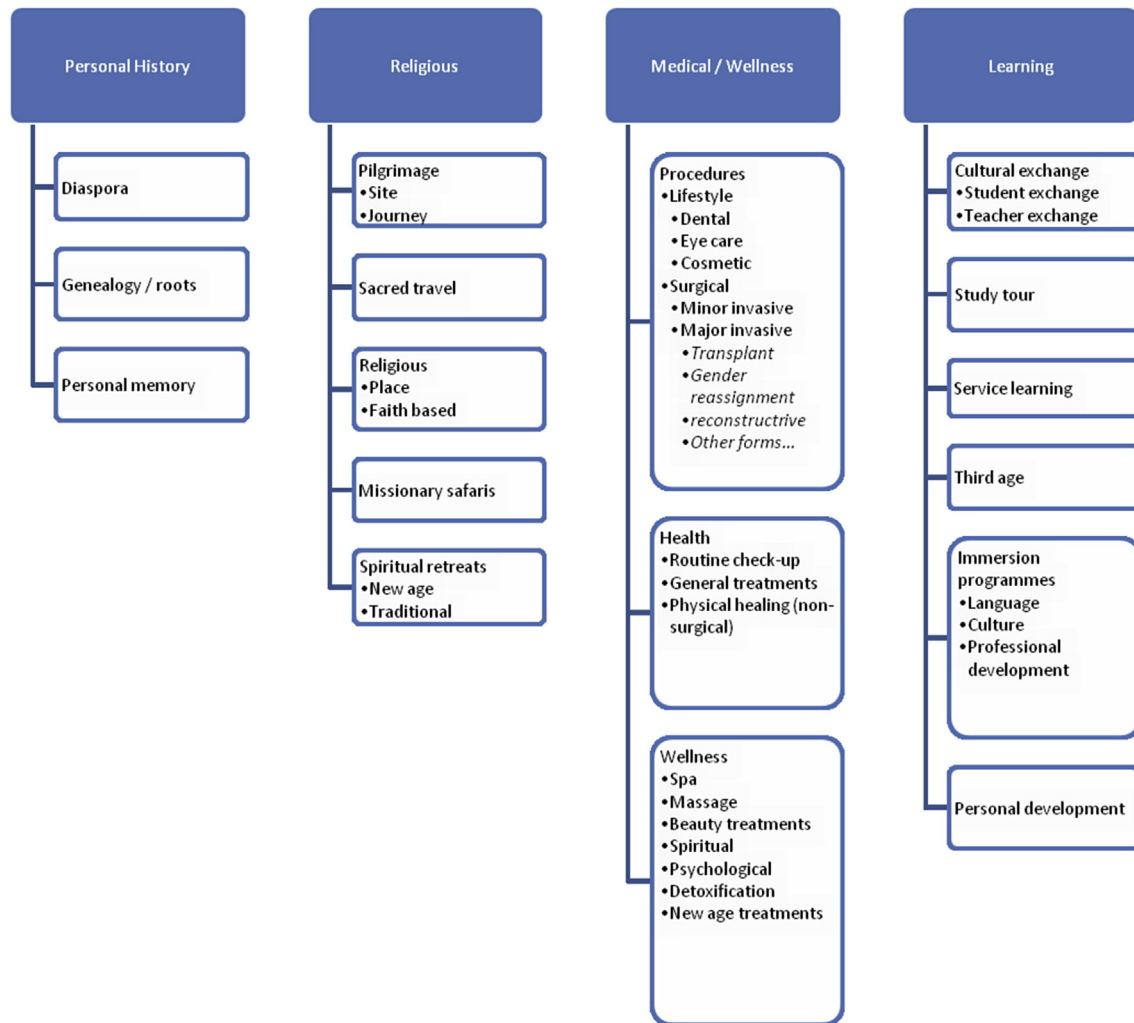


Fig. 4. Personal quest (detailed).

Product Family. Fig. 2–5 show the detailed Product Families, Classes, Lines, Types and Sub-types under each Need Family, with the exception of Business Travel. Business Travel is omitted, for its products fit well under the first three levels. The Product Family is represented by the coloured boxes at the top of each chart, with Product Classes represented by individual boxes below each Product Family. Product Lines are highlighted by bullet points, with Product types shown by indented bullet points. Sub-types are shown in *italics*. Lines, Types and Sub-types represent exemplars of specific products.

Tourism products can be grouped under one of five types of needs being satisfied: pleasure, personal quest, understanding human endeavours, nature and business. A total of 27 Product Families have been identified under the Need Families with just under 90 Product Classes defined that describe most of the tourism product offerings available. Need Families cannot be confused with motives. Here, Pearce's various works on his travel career pattern (Panchal & Pearce, 2011; Pearce & Lee, 2005) are instructive. He identifies four central motivations that represent the backbone or skeleton of all travel (novelty, escape/relaxation, relationship building and self development), as well as a wide array of middle and lower order motives that also come into play. The mix of motives and the varying levels of importance middle and lower tier motives play influence travel decisions. Importantly, as well, a variety of products may satisfy the same

motivational desire. Within this paper, Need Family reflects the core need being satisfied, while recognising the range and mix of motives that drive the desire to have these needs satisfied can vary widely.

The Pleasure Need Family (Fig. 3) captures much of what is normally associated with mainstream tourism experiences that reflect the liminal nature of tourism as a break from social norms (Jafari, 1987). In doing so, it allows the individual to set aside temporarily conventional standards of conduct that would normally be repressed at home (Selanne, 2003). The Product Classes reflect the range of play, escapist and personal activities generally associated with the beneficial aspects of tourism, as well as other indulgent actions where tourism sanctions, and indeed encourages the expressions of subterranean values (Matza & Sykes, 1961). The Personal Quest Need Family (Fig. 4) reflects the fact that some people travel today for more personal reasons associated with self development and/or learning. Quests can range from the desire for enhanced physical and mental health, in the case of medical and wellness tourism, through to personal development, understand one's origins and deeper spiritual quest.

The Human Endeavour and Nature Need Families (Figs. 5 and 6) adopt a more eclectic approach to tourism products and reflect the growth of various forms of special interest tourism. The Human Endeavour Family includes examples of both tangible and intangible heritage as typified by the Industrial and Built Heritage

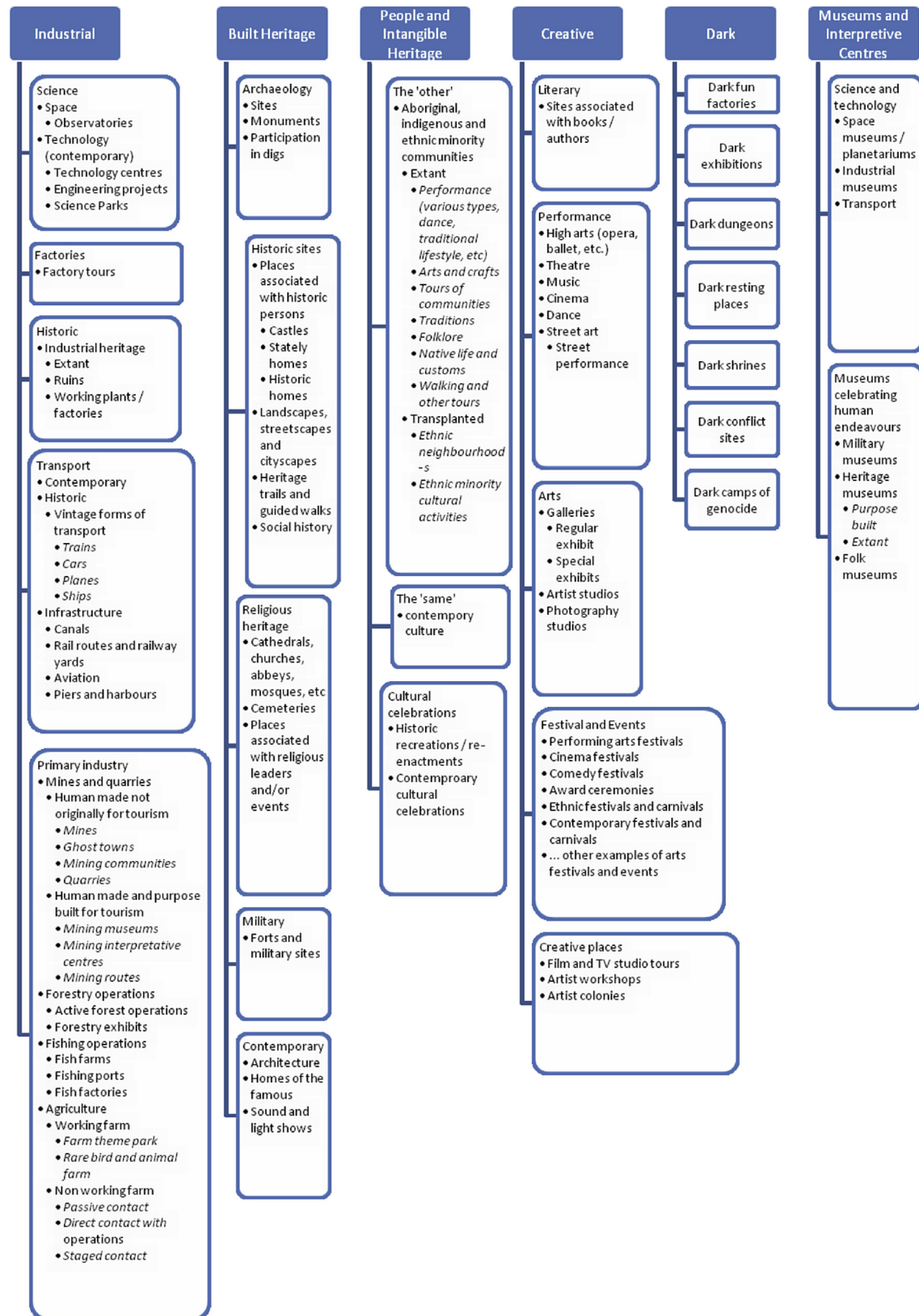


Fig. 5. Human endeavour (detailed).

Product Families on the one hand and the People and Intangible Heritage and Creative Product Families on the other hand. This Group also includes Dark tourism as a separate Product Family with

the types of product Classes defined by Stone (2006). Identifying discrete Product Families within the Nature Need Family proved to be challenging, for its products represent the greatest diversity of

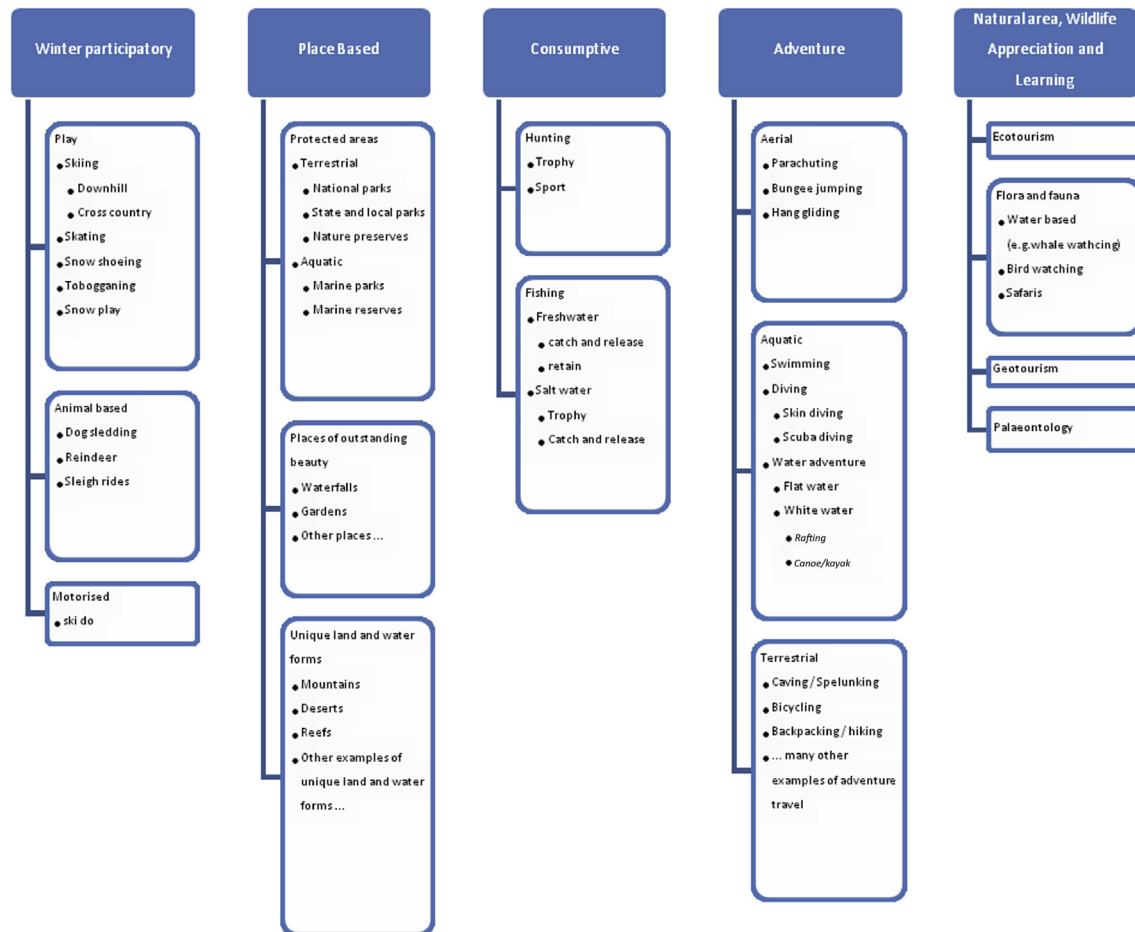


Fig. 6. Nature (detailed).

experiences. Not only does it include consumptive and non-consumptive activities, but it is also the only Need Family that has both seasonal (winter) and placed based (i.e. protected areas, mountains) Product Families.

6. Discussion and conclusions

Much work has been published attempting to group tourism products into meaningful categories. Yet, to date, the work has been uncoordinated. This study attempts to add an overarching structure by developing a comprehensive taxonomy. For the most part, the existing studies do a commendable job identifying product types, lines and classes. They are less useful in identifying Product and Need Families, though, in part because each was written independently and in part because the boundaries between some categories are either fuzzy or contested.

The adoption of a more holistic, integrative approach overcomes the inherent limitations of individual projects. In particular, a common language is used to classify products and common criteria are applied. In doing so, criteria such as geographic location and spatial size, that are used in some studies are excluded here, for the do not define discrete products, but simply variations on thematically similar products. A further consequence is that some components of tourism that are often portrayed as distinct products disappear, while others are disaggregated. This issue is especially evident in the MICE (Meetings Incentives, Conventions and Exhibitions) sector. Incentive travel is not deemed to be a product

consumed at a destination, although it is certainly recognized as a form of tourism sold at the source and promoted by Destination Management Organizations. But, its in-destination experiences consumed are subsumed into different categories. The Indulgent Product Class was created to reflect the more self serving, and possibly darker forms of pleasure travel. The decision to place Sport and Recreation under the Pleasure Group and not under the Nature Group was made in recognition that these activities do not have to be natural resource based dependent, even though they may be pursued out of doors (such as golf or water sports).

This paper also highlights the challenge of undertaking such a task. The sample of 330 products is indicative but clearly not exhaustive. Moreover, some classifications are open to further debate. Ecotourism, for example, has been identified as a product class under the broader Natural Area, Wildlife Appreciation and Learning Product Family because it is felt to be distinct from other forms of nature based tourism (Fennell, 2012). Yet, the distinctions may rest more in the degree of learning than the actual product offerings?

Academic research into tourism has flourished over the past 40 years. The range of subjects examined and the number of outlets to publish our research has grown geometrically. At the time of writing, more than 330 refereed tourism, hospitality and events journals have been identified. Pearce (2013) has written about the internationalization of tourism research, while others have documented the growth of tourism programmers in elsewhere (Airey & Johnson, 1999; Craig-Smith, Davidson, & French 1995, Leal, 2004).

Whereas once the field of study was pursued by a relatively small community of scholars, today it is a global phenomenon pursued by literally thousands of individuals. Indeed, in calendar year 2014, the Scopus data base listed over 2100 journal papers published in just 58 of the dedicated tourism, hospitality and events journals (McKercher & Tung, 2015).

This growth is exciting, but it also highlights the likelihood of further fragmentation of the field as the number of topics studied and journal outlets increases. The taxonomy proposes some product boundaries that will hopefully help focus research and aid in further theory development. This proposed taxonomy represents on way to begin to address these issues. A product focus is predicated on the understanding without products there would be no tourism (Lew, 1987) and if tourists did not consume products, they could not be considered as attractions (Leiper, 1990). The development of this taxonomy is considered to be the first step in creating a formal ontology of a domain.

References

- Airey, D., & Johnson, S. (1999). The content of tourism degree courses in the UK. *Tourism Management*, 20, 229–235.
- Anon. (2015). Definition for three types of theme parks. <http://www.familythemeparkvacations.com/three-types-of-theme-parks.html>.
- Arcodia, C., & Robb, A. (2000). A taxonomy of event management terms. In J. Allen, R. Harris, L. Jago, & A. Veal (Eds.), *Events beyond 2000: Setting the agenda. Proceedings of the conference on event evaluation* (pp. 154–161). Sydney: Research and Education. <https://opus.lib.uts.edu.au/research/bitstream/handle/2100/430/Proceedings%202000%20Conference.pdf?sequence=1>
- Arnegger, J., Woltering, M., & Job, H. (2010). Toward a product based typology for nature-based tourism: a conceptual framework. *Journal of Sustainable Tourism*, 18(7), 915–928.
- ATDW. (2015). *ATDW listings Australian tourism data warehouse* (nd). <http://www.atdw.com.au/products/>. <downloaded Oct 29, 2015>.
- Ausland, A. (2010). *Poverty tourism taxonomy 2.0. Staying for tea*. <http://stayingfortea.org/2010/08/27/poverty-tourism-taxonomy-2-0/>.
- Bauer, T., & McKercher, B. (Eds.). (2003). *Sex and tourism: Journeys of romance, love and lust*. Binghamton NY: Haworth Press.
- Benckendorff, P., & Zehrer, (2013). A network analysis of tourism research. *Annals of Tourism Research*, 43, 121–143.
- Braby, M., Eastwood, R., & Murray, N. (2012). The subspecies concept in butterflies: has its application in taxonomy and conservation biology outlived its usefulness? *Biological Journal of the Linnean Society*, 106, 699–716.
- Buckley, R. (2010). *Adventure tourism management*. Oxford: Butterworth-Heinemann.
- Cain, A. J. (2014). *Taxonomy*. *Encyclopedia britannica*. <http://www.britannica.com/EBchecked/topic/584695/taxonomy/48693/The-Linnaean-system>. <downloaded, May 23, 2015>.
- Clave, S. A. (2007). *The global theme park industry*. Wallingford: CAB.
- Coccosis, H., & Constangoglu, M. (2008). The use of typologies in tourism planning: problems and conflicts. In H. Coccosis, & Y. Psycharis (Eds.), *Regional analysis and policy: The greek experience*. Physica-Verlag HD contributions to economics series (pp. 272–296).
- Connell, J. (2013). Contemporary medical tourism: conceptualisation, culture and commodification. *Tourism Management*, 34(1), 1–13.
- Craig-Smith, S., Davidson, M., & French, C. (1995). Hospitality and tourism education in Australia: challenges and opportunities. In B. Faulkner, M. Fagence, M. Davidson, & S. Craig-Smith (Eds.), *Tourism education national conference papers* (pp. 144–150). Canberra: Bureau of Tourism Research.
- du Cros, H., & McKercher, B. (2015). *Cultural tourism: The partnership between tourism and cultural heritage management* (2nd ed.). Taylor and Francis.
- Dar, G., Shocker, A., & Srivastava, R. (1979). Customer oriented approaches to identifying product-markets. *Journal of Marketing*, 43, 8–19.
- Dupre, J. (2001). Defence of classification. *Studies in History and Philosophy of Biological and Biomedical Sciences*, 32(2), 203–219.
- Echtner, C., & Jamal, T. (1997). The disciplinary dilemma of tourism studies. *Annals of Tourism Research*, 24(4), 868–883.
- Ellis, S. (2011). Wellness tourism and medical tourism...different concepts? *International Medical Travel Journal*. <http://www.imtj.com/articles/2011/spas-and-the-wellness-tourism-sector-30110/>.
- EU. (2014). *Tourism industry subsectors of European countries*. http://ec.europa.eu/enterprise/sectors/tourism/tourism-business-portal/business/internationalization/subsectors/index_en.htm.
- Fennell, D. (2012). What's in a name: conceptualizing natural resource-based tourism. In T. V. Singh (Ed.), *Critical debates in tourism* (pp. 300–303). Clevedon: Channel View Publications.
- Fenneman, J. (2013). *What is taxonomy and where did it originate. E-Flora BC*. <http://www.geog.ubc.ca/biodiversity/eflora/IntroductiontoPlantTaxonomy.html>. <downloaded Oct 6, 2013>.
- Franklin, A., & Crang, M. (2001). The trouble with tourism and travel theory? *Tourist Studies*, 1(1), 5–22.
- Frost, W. (2012). Events and tourism. In S. Page, & J. Connell (Eds.), *The routledge handbook of events* (pp. 75–86). Oxon: Routledge.
- Gammon, S. (2012). Sports events: typology, people and place. In S. Page, & J. Connell (Eds.), *The routledge handbook of events* (pp. 75–86). Oxon: Routledge.
- Garrod, B., & Wilson, J. (Eds.). (2003). *Marine ecotourism: Issues and experiences*. Clevedon: Channel View Publications.
- Getz, D. (2008). Event tourism: definition, evolution, and research. *Tourism Management*, 29(3), 403–428.
- Getz, D. (2012). Event studies. In S. Page, & J. Connell (Eds.), *The routledge handbook of events* (pp. 27–46). Oxon: Routledge.
- Gibson, H. (1998). Sport tourism: a critical analysis of research. *Sport Management Review*, 1, 45–76.
- Gibson, H. (2002). Sport tourism at a crossroad? considerations for the future. In S. Gammon, & J. Kurtzman (Eds.), *Sport tourism: Principles and practice* (pp. 111–128). Eastbourne: Leisure Studies Association.
- Gjorgievski, M., Kozuharov, S., & Nakovski, D. (2013). Typology of recreational-tourism resources as an important element of the tourist offer. *UTMS Journal of Economics*, 4(1), 53–60.
- Goeldner, C., & Ritchie, J. R. B. (2011). *Tourism principles, practices, philosophies* (12th ed.). Toronto: Wiley.
- Hall, C., & Mitchell, R. (2005). Gastronomic tourism: comparing food and wine tourism experiences. In M. Novelli (Ed.), (2005) *Niche tourism: Contemporary issues, trends and cases* (pp. 73–88). Oxford: Butterworth-Heinemann.
- Hansman, S., & Hunt, R. (2004). A taxonomy of network and computer attacks. *Computers and Society*, 24(1), 31–43.
- Hedden, H. (2010). *The accidental taxonomist Medford: Information today*.
- Ho, P., & Ap, J. (2009). *Tourism and hospitality Studies: Theme Parks and Attractions: Manual on elective II – Theme Parks and attractions*. Hong Kong: Education Bureau.
- Howard, J. (1983). Marketing theory of the firm. *Journal of Marketing*, 47(4), 90–100.
- Howard, R. W. (2010). Urban tourism districts: a taxonomy and a study of a new proposed type. *Tourism and Hospitality Planning & Development*, 7(4), 415–428.
- Hunt, S. (2010). Theory: Issues and aspects. In M. Sharpe (Ed.), *Marketing theory: Foundations, controversy, strategy, resource-advantage theory* (pp. 199–221). Armonk, NY: M.E. Sharpe, Inc.
- Jafari, J. (1987). Tourism models: the sociocultural aspects. *Tourism Management*, 8(2), 151–159.
- Jafari, J., & Ritchie, B. (1981). Toward a framework for tourism education. *Problems and prospects Annals of Tourism Research*, 8(1), 13–34.
- Jensen, R. (2009). Phenetics: revolution, reform or natural consequence. *Taxon*, 58(1), 50–60.
- Kennedy-Eden, H., & Gretzel, U. (2012). A taxonomy of mobile applications in tourism. *e-Review of Tourism Research*, 10(2), 47–50.
- Kerin, R., Kalyanaram, G., & Howard, D. (1996). Product hierarchy and brand strategy influences on the order of Entry Effect for consumer packaged goods. *Journal of Product Innovation Management*, 13, 21–34.
- Kotler, P., & Keller, P. (2009). *bASIC*. Harlow: Pearson.
- Kotler, P., & Keller, P. (2012). *Marketing management* (14th ed.). Toronto: Prentice Hall.
- Laws, E., & Scott, N. (2015). Tourism Research: Building from other disciplines. *Tourism Recreation Research*, 49(1), 48–58.
- Leal, S. (2004). Is tourism education in Brazil sustainable? In J. Tribe, & E. Wickens (Eds.), 14. *Critical issues in tourism education* (pp. 71–76).
- Leask, A., & Yeoman, I. (1999). *Heritage visitor attractions: An operations management perspective*. London: Casell.
- Leiper, N. (1990). Tourist attraction systems. *Annals of Tourism Research*, 17(2), 367–384.
- Lew, A. (1987). A framework for tourism attractions research. *Annals of Tourism Research*, 14, 533–575.
- Linnaean. (2015). *Taxonomy*. <http://linnaeansociety.org/index.html>.
- Mallett, J. (2007). Subspecies, semispecies, superspecies. In S. Levin (Ed.), *Encyclopedia of biodiversity*. London: Elsevier. <http://www.ucl.ac.uk/taxome/jim/Sp/Sub-semi.pdf>.
- Marschall, S. (2014). Tourism and remembrance: the journey into the self and its past. *Journal of Tourism and Cultural Change*, 12(4), 335–348.
- Matza, D., & Sykes, G. (1961). Juvenile delinquency and subterranean values. *American Sociological Review*, 26, 712–719.
- Mazanec, J. A. (2009). Unraveling myths in tourism research. *Tourism Recreation Research*, 34(3), 319–323.
- McKercher, B. (1993). *Some Fundamental Truths About Tourism: Understanding Tourism's Social and Environmental Impacts* *Journal of Sustainable Tourism*, 1(1), 6–16.
- McKercher, B., & Tung, V. (2015). Publishing in tourism and hospitality journals: Is the past a prelude to the future? *Tourism Management*, 50, 306–315.
- Medtrear. (2015). *Treatment types*. http://www.medtrear.com/procedures/treatment_types.html.
- Megehee, C., & Spake, D. (2008). Decoding southern culture and hospitality. *International Journal of Culture, Tourism and Hospitality Research*, 2(2), 97–101.
- Mehmetoglu, M. (2004a). A typology of tourists from a different angle. *International Journal of Hospitality & Tourism Administration*, 5(3), 69–90.
- Mihalic, T. (2006). Nature-based products, ecotourism and adventure tourism. In D. Buhalis, & C. Costa (Eds.), *Tourism business frontiers: Consumers, products and industry* (pp. 111–117). Oxford: Butterworth-Heinemann.

- Nibbs, S. (1999). *A guide to tourism careers, education and training in the Caribbean*. Caribbean Tourism Organisation. <http://www.onecaribbean.org/content/files/CTOGuidetourismcareersmanual.pdf>.
- NIOS. (2013). *Forms of tourism*. National Institute of Open Schooling. http://oer.nios.ac.in/wiki/index.php/Forms_of_Tourism.
- Page, S. (2009). *Tourism management: Managing for change* (3rd ed.). Oxford: Butterworth-Heinemann.
- Panchal, J., & Pearce, P. L. (2011). Health motives and the travel career pattern (TCP) model. *Asian Journal of Tourism and Hospitality Research*, 5(1), 32–44.
- Pearce, P. (1991). Analysing tourist attractions. *The Journal of Tourism Studies*, 2(1), 46–55.
- Pearce, D. (2001). An integrative framework for urban tourism research. *Annals of Tourism Research*, 28, 926–946.
- Pearce, D. (2013). The internationalization of tourism research. *Journal of Travel Research*, 53(3), 267–280.
- Pearce, P., & Lee, U.-I. (2005). Developing the travel career ladder approach to tourist motivation. *Journal of Travel Research*, 43(3), 226–237.
- Phillip, S., Hunter, C., & Blackstock, K. (2010). A typology for defining agritourism. *Tourism Management*, 31, 754–758.
- Prentice, R. (1993). *Tourism and heritage places*. London: Routledge.
- Pritchard, A. (2012). Critical tourism research. In I. Ateljevic, N. Morgan, & A. Pritchard (Eds.), *The critical turn in tourism studies; creating an academy of Hope* (pp. 11–13). Oxon: Routledge.
- Rich, P. (1992). The organizational taxonomy: definition and design. *The Academy of Management Review*, 17(2), 758–781.
- Richards, G. (2001). Development of cultural tourism and cultural attractions. In G. Richards (Ed.), *Cultural attractions and European tourism*. CABI Publishing.
- Ritchie, B. (2003). *Managing educational tourism*. Clevedon: Channel View Publications.
- Ritchie, J., Sheehan, L., & Timur, S. (2008). Tourism sciences or tourism studies? implications for the design and content of tourism programming. *Teoros*, 27(1). <http://teoros.revues.org/1621>.
- Robinson, T., & Gammon, S. (2004). A question of primary and secondary motives: revisiting and applying the sport tourism framework. *Journal of Sport & Tourism*, 9(3), 221–233. <http://dx.doi.org/10.1080/1477508042000320223>.
- Robinson, P., Lück, M., & Smith, S. (2013). *Tourism*. Wallingford: Cabi.
- Robinson, M., & Novelli, M. (2005). Niche tourism: an introduction. In M. Novelli (Ed.), (2005) *Niche tourism: Contemporary issues, trends and cases* (pp. 1–14). Oxford: Butterworth-Heinemann.
- Ryan, C., & Hall, C. (2001). *Sex tourism: Marginal people and liminalities*. New York: Routledge.
- Selanniemi, T. (2003). On holiday in the liminoid playground: place, time and self in tourism. In T. Bauer, & B. McKercher (Eds.), *Sex and tourism: Journeys of romance, love and lust* (pp. 19–34). Binghamton: Haworth Press.
- Sharpley, R. (2005). Travels to the edge of darkness: towards a typology of dark tourism. In C. Ryan, S. Page, & M. Aitken (Eds.), *Taking tourism to the limits: Issues, concepts and managerial perspectives* (pp. 217–228). Oxford: Elsevier.
- Smith, K. (2002). Typologies, taxonomies, and the benefits of policy classification. *Policy Studies Journal*, 30(3), 379–395.
- Smith, V. (1996). War and its tourist attractions. In A. Pizam, & Y. Mansfeld (Eds.), *Tourism, crime and international security issues* (pp. 247–264). Brisbane: John Wiley and Sons Ltd.
- Smith, M., & Puczko, L. (2009). In *Health and wellness tourism*. Oxford: Butterworth-Heinemann.
- Sokal, R. (1986). Phenetic taxonomy: theory and methods. *Annual Review of Ecology and Systematics*, 17, 423–442.
- Standeven, J., & De Knop, P. (1999). *Sport Tourism: An international perspective*. Champaign: Human Kinetics Publishers.
- Stolley, K., & Watson, S. (2012). *Medical tourism: A reference handbook*. Santa Barbara: ABC CLIO.
- Stone, P. (2006). A dark tourism spectrum: towards a typology of death and macabre related tourist sites, attractions and exhibitions. *Tourizam: An Interdisciplinary International Journal*, 54.2(2006), 145–160.
- Swarbrooke, J. (2002). *The development & management of visitor attractions* (2nd ed.). Oxford, UK: Butterworth-Heinemann.
- Swarbrooke, J., & Horner, S. (2001). *Business travel and tourism*. Oxford: Butterworth-Heinemann.
- TAT. (2010). *Medical Tourism in Thailand*. Bangkok: Tourism Authority of Thailand – Medical Tourism Portal. <http://www.thailandmedtourism.com/Home/28>.
- Tribe, J. (2006). The truth about tourism. *Annals of Tourism Research*, 33(2), 360–381.
- Tweed, C. (2005). *Taxonomy of cultural attractors. Deliverable D8. PICTURE (Pro-active management of the impact of cultural tourism upon urban resources and economies* (p. 26). http://www.culture-routes.lu/picture/IMG/pdf/225_long_en.pdf. <downloaded Mar 28, 2014.
- UNWTO. (2008a). *International recommendations for tourism statistics 2008 draft compilation guide*. Madrid: UNWTO. <http://unstats.un.org/unsd/tradeserv/egts/CG/IRTS%20compilation%20guide%207%20march%202011%20-%20final.pdf>.
- UNWTO. (2008b). *International recommendations for tourism statistics 2008*. Madrid: UNWTO. <http://unstats.un.org/unsd/tradeserv/IRTS%202008%20edited%20whitecover.pdf>.
- Velardi, P., Cucchiarelli, A., & Petit, M. (2007). A taxonomy learning method and its application to characterize a scientific web community. *IEEE Transactions on Knowledge and Data Engineering*, 19(2), 180–191.
- Williams, S. (2009). *Tourism geography: A new synthesis*. London: Routledge.
- Yale, P. (1998). *From tourist attractions to heritage tourism* (2nd ed.). Huntingdon: Elm Publications.
- Young, C., Corsun, D., & Baloglu, S. (2007). A taxonomy of hosts visiting friends and relatives. *Annals of Tourism Research*, 34(2), 497–516.



Dr Bob McKercher has wide ranging research interests. He received his PhD from the University of Melbourne in Australia, a Masters degree from Carleton University in Ottawa, Canada and his undergraduate degree from York University in Toronto, Canada. Prior to entering academia, he worked in a variety of operational and advocacy position in the Canadian tourism industry.